

Data Mining

Module 2

Dr. Rashmi Vashisth

- Data Preprocessing: An Overview 
 - Data Quality
 - Major Tasks in Data Preprocessing
- Data Cleaning
- Data Integration
- Data Reduction
- Data Transformation and Data Discretization
- Summary

Data Quality: Why Preprocess the Data?

- Measures for data quality: A multidimensional view
 - Accuracy: correct or wrong, accurate or not
 - Completeness: not recorded, unavailable, ...
 - Consistency: some modified but some not, dangling, ...
 - Timeliness: timely update?
 - Believability: how trustable the data are correct?
 - Interpretability: how easily the data can be understood?

Major Tasks in Data Preprocessing

- **Data cleaning**
 - Fill in missing values, smooth noisy data, identify or remove outliers, and resolve inconsistencies
- **Data integration**
 - Integration of multiple databases, data cubes, or files
- **Data reduction**
 - Dimensionality reduction
 - Numerosity reduction
 - Data compression
- **Data transformation and data discretization**
 - Normalization
 - Concept hierarchy generation

Data Preprocessing

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Data Cleaning

- Data in the Real World Is Dirty: Lots of potentially incorrect data, e.g., instrument faulty, human or computer error, transmission error
 - incomplete: lacking attribute values, lacking certain attributes of interest, or containing only aggregate data
 - e.g., *Occupation*=“ ” (missing data)
 - noisy: containing noise, errors, or outliers
 - e.g., *Salary*=“-10” (an error)
 - inconsistent: containing discrepancies in codes or names, e.g.,
 - *Age*=“42”, *Birthday*=“03/07/2010”
 - Was rating “1, 2, 3”, now rating “A, B, C”
 - discrepancy between duplicate records
 - Intentional (e.g., *disguised missing* data)
 - Jan. 1 as everyone’s birthday?

Incomplete (Missing) Data

- Data is not always available
 - E.g., many tuples have no recorded value for several attributes, such as customer income in sales data
- Missing data may be due to
 - equipment malfunction
 - inconsistent with other recorded data and thus deleted
 - data not entered due to misunderstanding
 - certain data may not be considered important at the time of entry
 - not register history or changes of the data
- Missing data may need to be inferred

How to Handle Missing Data?

- Ignore the tuple: usually done when class label is missing (when doing classification)—not effective when the % of missing values per attribute varies considerably
- Fill in the missing value manually: tedious + infeasible?
- Fill in it automatically with
 - a global constant : e.g., “unknown”, a new class?!
 - the attribute mean
 - the attribute mean for all samples belonging to the same class: smarter
 - the most probable value: inference-based such as Bayesian formula or decision tree

- **Noise**: random error or variance in a measured variable
- **Incorrect attribute values** may be due to
 - faulty data collection instruments
 - data entry problems
 - data transmission problems
 - technology limitation
 - inconsistency in naming convention
- **Other data problems** which require data cleaning
 - duplicate records
 - incomplete data
 - inconsistent data

How to Handle Noisy Data?

- **Binning**
 - first sort data and partition into (equal-frequency) bins
 - then one can **smooth by bin means**, **smooth by bin median**, **smooth by bin boundaries**, etc.
- **Regression**
 - smooth by fitting the data into regression functions
- **Clustering**
 - detect and remove outliers
- **Combined computer and human inspection**
 - detect suspicious values and check by human (e.g., deal with possible outliers)

- **Data discrepancy detection**
 - Use metadata (e.g., domain, range, dependency, distribution)
 - Check field overloading
 - Check uniqueness rule, consecutive rule and null rule
 - Use commercial tools
 - Data scrubbing: use simple domain knowledge (e.g., postal code, spell-check) to detect errors and make corrections
 - Data auditing: by analyzing data to discover rules and relationship to detect violators (e.g., correlation and clustering to find outliers)
- **Data migration and integration**
 - Data migration tools: allow transformations to be specified
 - ETL (Extraction/Transformation/Loading) tools: allow users to specify transformations through a graphical user interface
- Integration of the two processes
 - Iterative and interactive (e.g., Potter's Wheels)

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- **Data integration:**
 - Combines data from multiple sources into a coherent store
- Schema integration: e.g., A.cust-id $\equiv$ B.cust-#
 - Integrate metadata from different sources
- **Entity identification problem:**
 - Identify real world entities from multiple data sources, e.g., Bill Clinton = William Clinton
- Detecting and resolving data value conflicts
 - For the same real world entity, attribute values from different sources are different
 - Possible reasons: different representations, different scales, e.g., metric vs. British units

- Redundant data occur often when integration of multiple databases
 - *Object identification*: The same attribute or object may have different names in different databases
 - *Derivable data*: One attribute may be a “derived” attribute in another table, e.g., annual revenue
- Redundant attributes may be able to be detected by *correlation analysis and covariance analysis*
- Careful integration of the data from multiple sources may help reduce/avoid redundancies and inconsistencies and improve mining speed and quality

- **χ^2 (chi-square) test**

$$\chi^2 = \sum \frac{(\text{Observed} - \text{Expected})^2}{\text{Expected}}$$

- The larger the χ^2 value, the more likely the variables are related
- The cells that contribute the most to the χ^2 value are those whose actual count is very different from the expected count
- Correlation does not imply causality
 - # of hospitals and # of car-theft in a city are correlated
 - Both are causally linked to the third variable: population

Chi-Square Calculation: An Example



	Play chess	Not play chess	Sum (row)
Like science fiction	250(90)	200(360)	450
Not like science fiction	50(210)	1000(840)	1050
Sum(col.)	300	1200	1500

- χ^2 (chi-square) calculation (numbers in parenthesis are expected counts calculated based on the data distribution in the two categories)

$$\chi^2 = \frac{(250-90)^2}{90} + \frac{(50-210)^2}{210} + \frac{(200-360)^2}{360} + \frac{(1000-840)^2}{840} = 507.93$$

- It shows that like_science_fiction and play_chess are correlated in the group

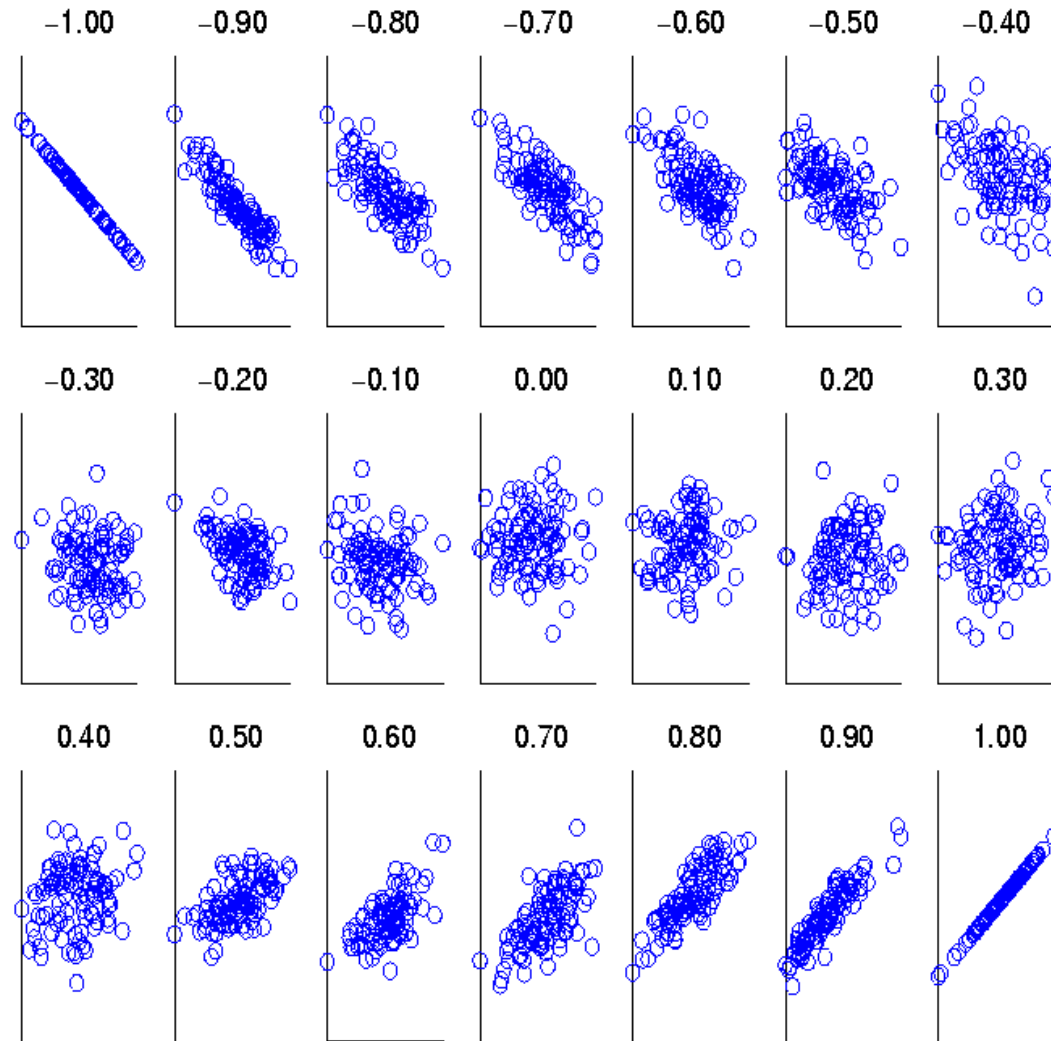
- Correlation coefficient (also called **Pearson's product moment coefficient**)

$$r_{A,B} = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n (a_i - \bar{A})(b_i - \bar{B})}{(n-1)\sigma_A\sigma_B} = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n (a_i b_i) - n\bar{A}\bar{B}}{(n-1)\sigma_A\sigma_B}$$

where n is the number of tuples, $\bar{A}$ and $\bar{B}$ are the respective means of A and B , σ_A and σ_B are the respective standard deviation of A and B , and $\sum(a_i b_i)$ is the sum of the AB cross-product.

- If $r_{A,B} > 0$, A and B are positively correlated (A 's values increase as B 's). The higher, the stronger correlation.
- $r_{A,B} = 0$: independent; $r_{AB} < 0$: negatively correlated

Visually Evaluating Correlation



**Scatter plots
showing the
similarity from
-1 to 1.**

Correlation (viewed as linear relationship)

- Correlation measures the linear relationship between objects
- To compute correlation, we standardize data objects, A and B, and then take their dot product

$$a'_k = (a_k - \text{mean}(A)) / \text{std}(A)$$

$$b'_k = (b_k - \text{mean}(B)) / \text{std}(B)$$

$$\text{correlation}(A, B) = A' \bullet B'$$

- Covariance is similar to correlation

$$Cov(A, B) = E((A - \bar{A})(B - \bar{B})) = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n (a_i - \bar{A})(b_i - \bar{B})}{n}$$

Correlation coefficient: $r_{A,B} = \frac{Cov(A, B)}{\sigma_A \sigma_B}$

where n is the number of tuples, $\bar{A}$ and $\bar{B}$ are the respective mean or **expected values** of A and B, σ_A and σ_B are the respective standard deviation of A and B.

- Positive covariance:** If $Cov_{A,B} > 0$, then A and B both tend to be larger than their expected values.
- Negative covariance:** If $Cov_{A,B} < 0$ then if A is larger than its expected value, B is likely to be smaller than its expected value.
- Independence:** $Cov_{A,B} = 0$ but the converse is not true:
 - Some pairs of random variables may have a covariance of 0 but are not independent. Only under some additional assumptions (e.g., the data follow multivariate normal distributions) does a covariance of 0 imply independence

- $$Cov(A, B) = E((A - \bar{A})(B - \bar{B})) = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n (a_i - \bar{A})(b_i - \bar{B})}{n}$$
- It can be simplified in computation as

$$Cov(A, B) = E(A \cdot B) - \bar{A}\bar{B}$$

- Suppose two stocks A and B have the following values in one week: (2, 5), (3, 8), (5, 10), (4, 11), (6, 14).
- Question: If the stocks are affected by the same industry trends, will their prices rise or fall together?
 - $E(A) = (2 + 3 + 5 + 4 + 6) / 5 = 20/5 = 4$
 - $E(B) = (5 + 8 + 10 + 11 + 14) / 5 = 48/5 = 9.6$
 - $Cov(A, B) = (2 \times 5 + 3 \times 8 + 5 \times 10 + 4 \times 11 + 6 \times 14) / 5 - 4 \times 9.6 = 4$
- Thus, A and B rise together since $Cov(A, B) > 0$.



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- **Data reduction:** Obtain a reduced representation of the data set that is much smaller in volume but yet produces the same (or almost the same) analytical results
- Why data reduction? — A database/data warehouse may store terabytes of data. Complex data analysis may take a very long time to run on the complete data set.
- Data reduction strategies
 - **Dimensionality reduction**, e.g., remove unimportant attributes
 - Wavelet transforms
 - Principal Components Analysis (PCA)
 - Feature subset selection, feature creation
 - **Numerosity reduction** (some simply call it: Data Reduction)
 - Regression and Log-Linear Models
 - Histograms, clustering, sampling
 - Data cube aggregation
 - **Data compression**

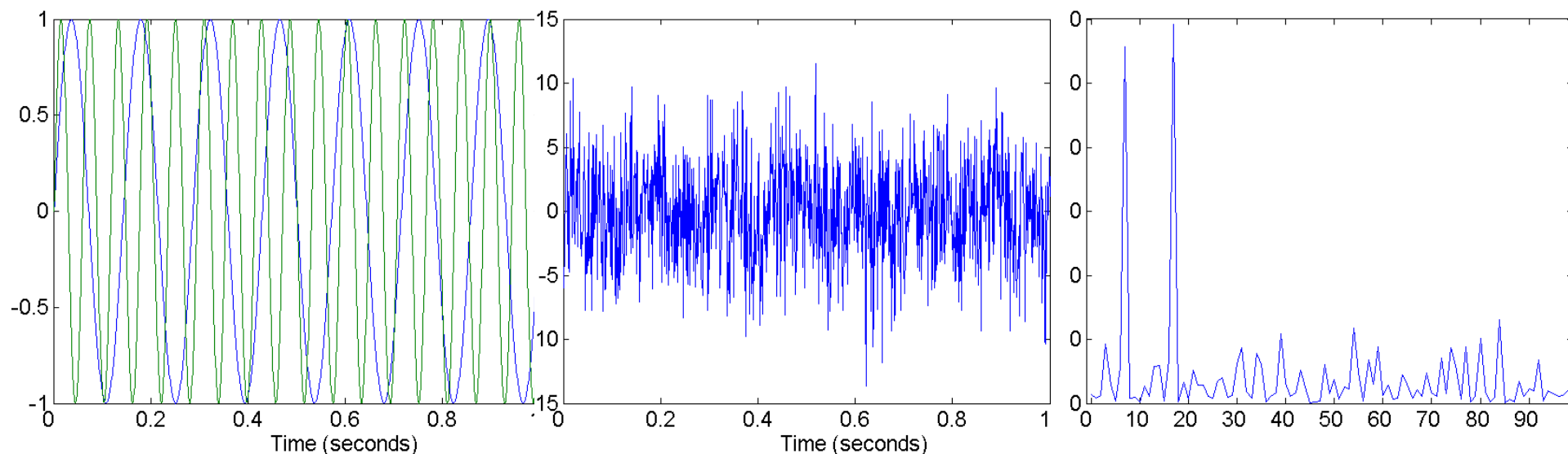
Data Reduction 1: Dimensionality Reduction

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- **Curse of dimensionality**
 - When dimensionality increases, data becomes increasingly sparse
 - Density and distance between points, which is critical to clustering, outlier analysis, becomes less meaningful
 - The possible combinations of subspaces will grow exponentially
- **Dimensionality reduction**
 - Avoid the curse of dimensionality
 - Help eliminate irrelevant features and reduce noise
 - Reduce time and space required in data mining
 - Allow easier visualization
- **Dimensionality reduction techniques**
 - Wavelet transforms
 - Principal Component Analysis
 - Supervised and nonlinear techniques (e.g., feature selection)

Mapping Data to a New Space

- **Fourier transform**
- **Wavelet transform**



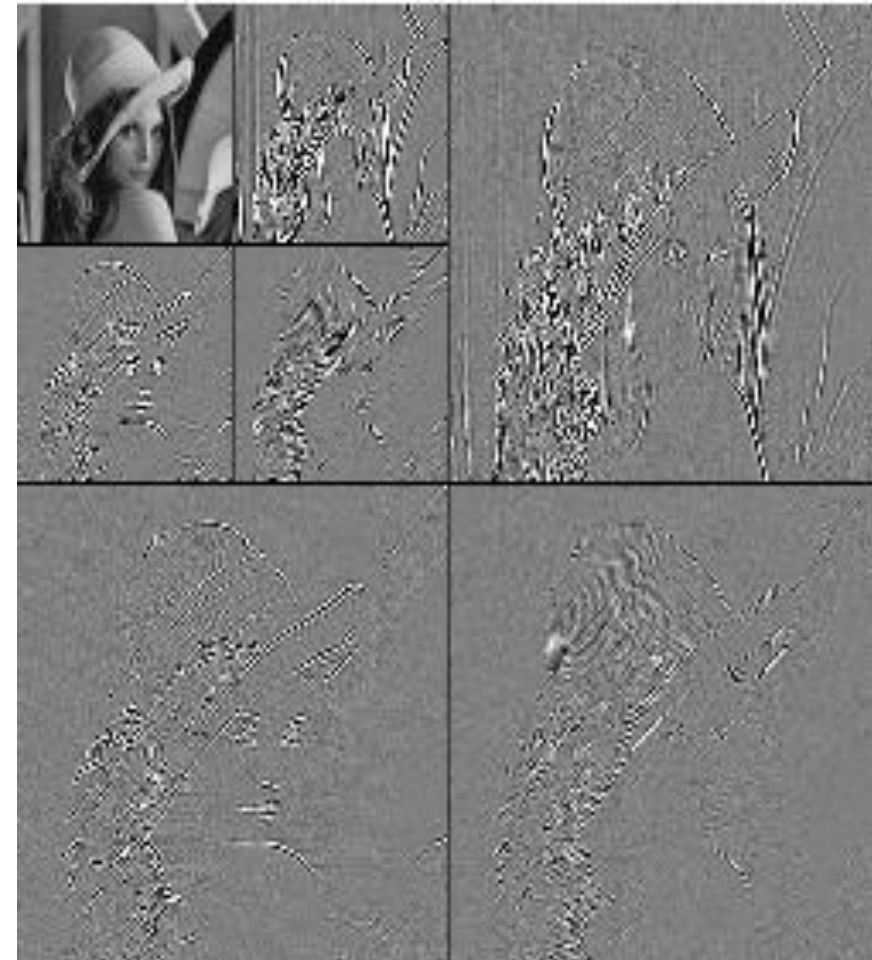
Two Sine Waves

Two Sine Waves + Noise

Frequency

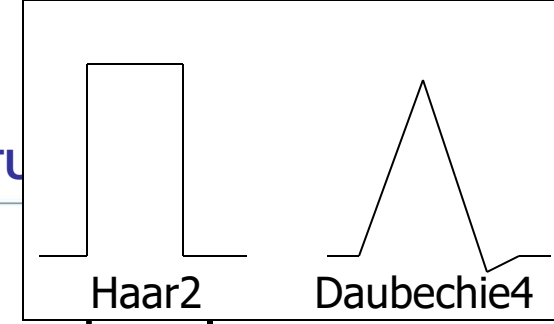
What Is Wavelet Transform?

- Decomposes a signal into different frequency subbands
 - Applicable to n-dimensional signals
- Data are transformed to preserve relative distance between objects at different levels of resolution
- Allow natural clusters to become more distinguishable
- Used for image compression





Wavelet Transformation



- Discrete wavelet transform (DWT) for linear signal processing, multi-resolution analysis
- Compressed approximation: store only a small fraction of the strongest of the wavelet coefficients
- Similar to discrete Fourier transform (DFT), but better lossy compression, localized in space
- Method:
 - Length, L , must be an integer power of 2 (padding with 0's, when necessary)
 - Each transform has 2 functions: smoothing, difference
 - Applies to pairs of data, resulting in two set of data of length $L/2$
 - Applies two functions recursively, until reaches the desired length

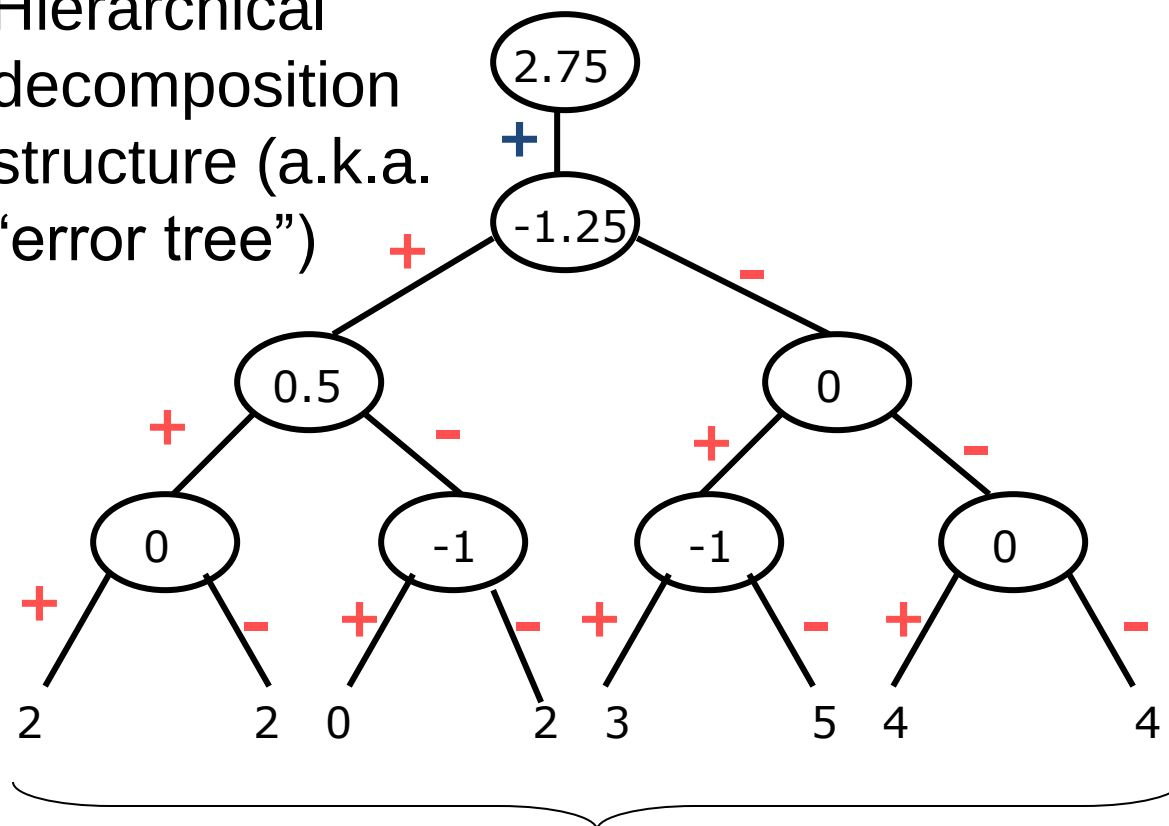
Wavelet Decomposition

- Wavelets: A math tool for space-efficient hierarchical decomposition of functions
- $S = [2, 2, 0, 2, 3, 5, 4, 4]$ can be transformed to $S_{\wedge} = [2^{3/4}, -1^{1/4}, 1/2, 0, 0, -1, -1, 0]$
- Compression: many small detail coefficients can be replaced by 0's, and only the significant coefficients are retained

Resolution	Averages	Detail Coefficients
8	$[2, 2, 0, 2, 3, 5, 4, 4]$	
4	$[2, 1, 4, 4]$	$[0, -1, -1, 0]$
2	$[1\frac{1}{2}, 4]$	$[\frac{1}{2}, 0]$
1	$[2\frac{3}{4}]$	$[-1\frac{1}{4}]$

Haar Wavelet Coefficients

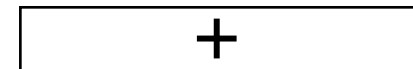
Hierarchical decomposition structure (a.k.a. "error tree")



Original frequency distribution

Coefficient "Supports"

2.75



-1.25



0.5



0



0



-1



-1



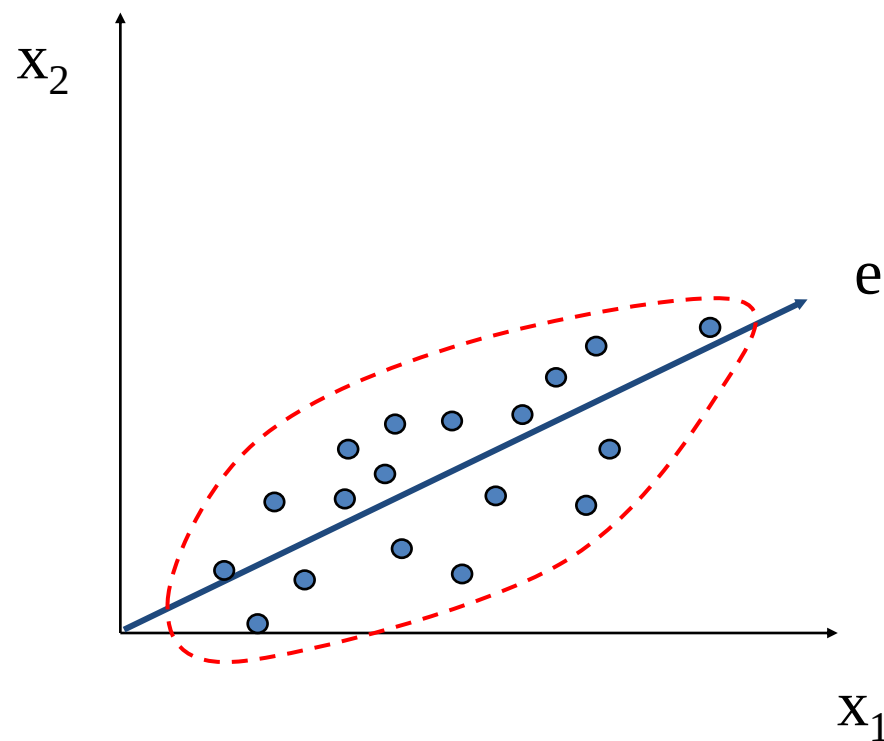
0



Why Wavelet Transform?

- Use hat-shape filters
 - Emphasize region where points cluster
 - Suppress weaker information in their boundaries
- Effective removal of outliers
 - Insensitive to noise, insensitive to input order
- Multi-resolution
 - Detect arbitrary shaped clusters at different scales
- Efficient
 - Complexity $O(N)$
- Only applicable to low dimensional data

- Find a projection that captures the largest amount of variation in data
- The original data are projected onto a much smaller space, resulting in dimensionality reduction. We find the eigenvectors of the covariance matrix, and these eigenvectors define the new space



- Given N data vectors from n -dimensions, find $k \leq n$ orthogonal vectors (*principal components*) that can be best used to represent data
 - Normalize input data: Each attribute falls within the same range
 - Compute k orthonormal (unit) vectors, i.e., *principal components*
 - Each input data (vector) is a linear combination of the k principal component vectors
 - The principal components are sorted in order of decreasing “significance” or strength
 - Since the components are sorted, the size of the data can be reduced by eliminating the *weak components*, i.e., those with low variance (i.e., using the strongest principal components, it is possible to reconstruct a good approximation of the original data)
- Works for numeric data only

Attribute Subset Selection

- Another way to reduce dimensionality of data
- Redundant attributes
 - Duplicate much or all of the information contained in one or more other attributes
 - E.g., purchase price of a product and the amount of sales tax paid
- Irrelevant attributes
 - Contain no information that is useful for the data mining task at hand
 - E.g., students' ID is often irrelevant to the task of predicting students' GPA

Heuristic Search in Attribute Selection

- There are 2^d possible attribute combinations of d attributes
- Typical heuristic attribute selection methods:
 - Best single attribute under the attribute independence assumption: choose by significance tests
 - Best step-wise feature selection:
 - The best single-attribute is picked first
 - Then next best attribute condition to the first, ...
 - Step-wise attribute elimination:
 - Repeatedly eliminate the worst attribute
 - Best combined attribute selection and elimination
 - Optimal branch and bound:
 - Use attribute elimination and backtracking

Attribute Creation (Feature Generation)

- Create new attributes (features) that can capture the important information in a data set more effectively than the original ones
- Three general methodologies
 - Attribute extraction
 - Domain-specific
 - Mapping data to new space (see: data reduction)
 - E.g., Fourier transformation, wavelet transformation, manifold approaches (not covered)
 - Attribute construction
 - Combining features
 - Data discretization



Data Reduction 2: Numerosity Reduction

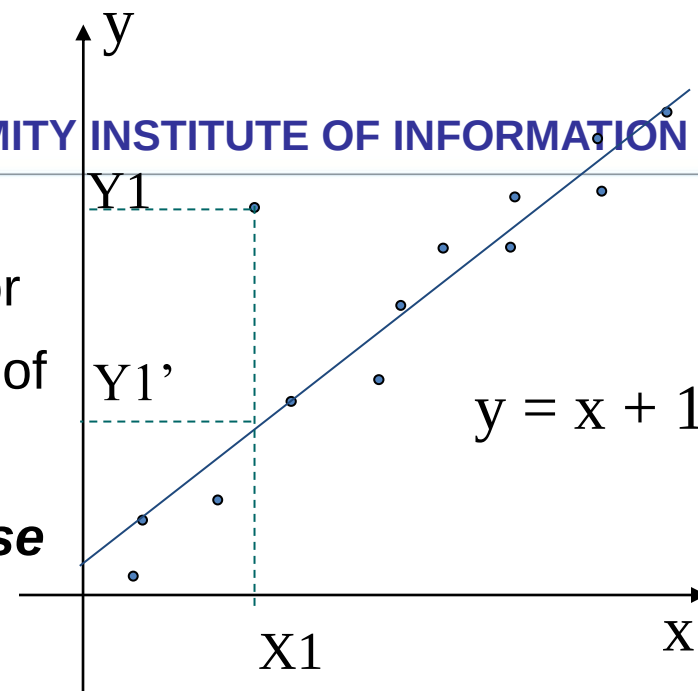
- Reduce data volume by choosing alternative, *smaller forms* of data representation
- **Parametric methods** (e.g., regression)
 - Assume the data fits some model, estimate model parameters, store only the parameters, and discard the data (except possible outliers)
 - Ex.: Log-linear models—obtain value at a point in m -D space as the product on appropriate marginal subspaces
- **Non-parametric** methods
 - Do not assume models
 - Major families: histograms, clustering, sampling, ...

- **Linear regression**
 - Data modeled to fit a straight line
 - Often uses the least-square method to fit the line
- **Multiple regression**
 - Allows a response variable Y to be modeled as a linear function of multidimensional feature vector
- **Log-linear model**
 - Approximates discrete multidimensional probability distributions



Regression Analysis

- Regression analysis: A collective name for techniques for the modeling and analysis of numerical data consisting of values of a **dependent variable** (also called **response variable** or *measurement*) and of one or more *independent variables* (aka. **explanatory variables** or **predictors**)



- The parameters are estimated so as to give a "**best fit**" of the data
- Most commonly the best fit is evaluated by using the **least squares method**, but other criteria have also been used
- Used for prediction (including forecasting of time-series data), inference, hypothesis testing, and modeling of causal relationships

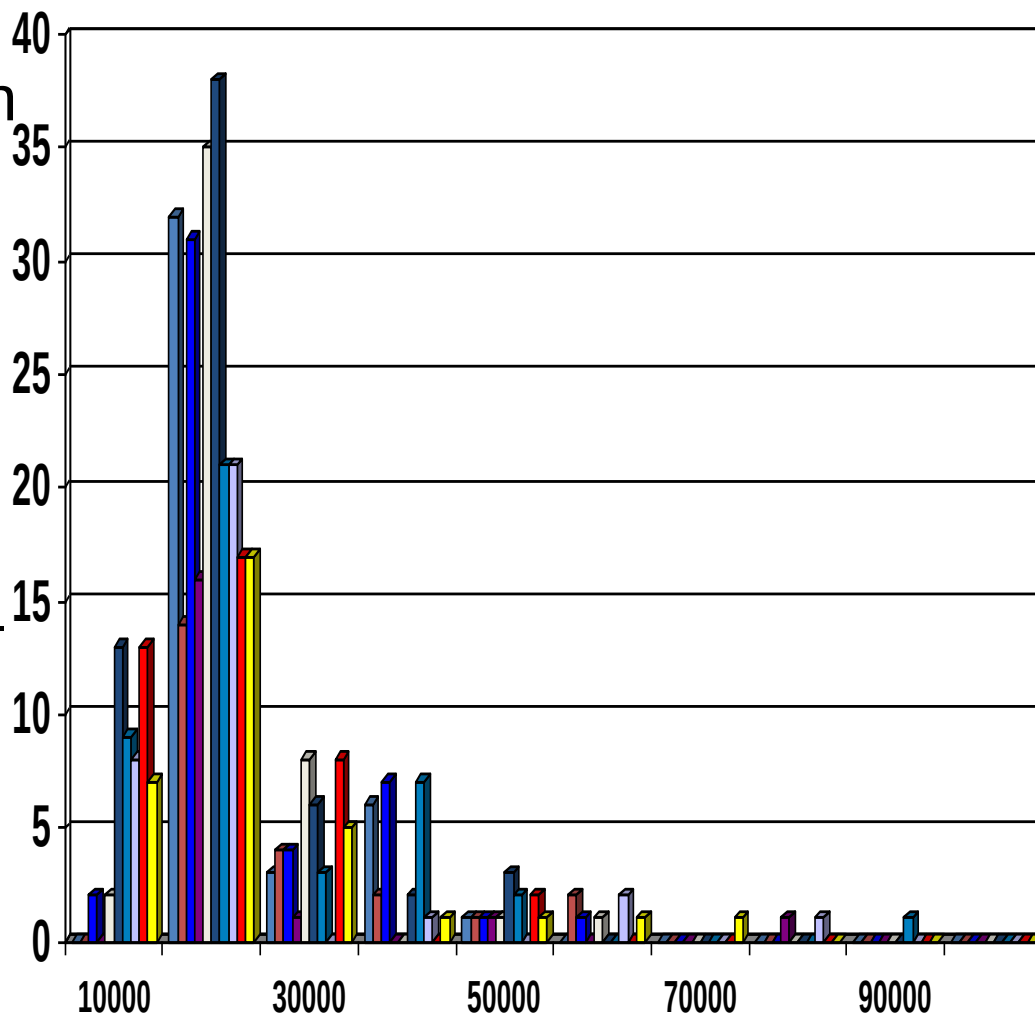
Regress Analysis and Log-Linear Models

- Linear regression: $Y = w X + b$
 - Two regression coefficients, w and b , specify the line and are to be estimated by using the data at hand
 - Using the least squares criterion to the known values of $Y_1, Y_2, \dots, X_1, X_2, \dots$
- Multiple regression: $Y = b_0 + b_1 X_1 + b_2 X_2$
 - Many nonlinear functions can be transformed into the above
- Log-linear models:
 - Approximate discrete multidimensional probability distributions
 - Estimate the probability of each point (tuple) in a multi-dimensional space for a set of discretized attributes, based on a smaller subset of dimensional combinations
 - Useful for dimensionality reduction and data smoothing



Histogram Analysis

- Divide data into buckets and store average (sum) for each bucket
- Partitioning rules:
 - Equal-width: equal bucket range
 - Equal-frequency (or equal-depth)



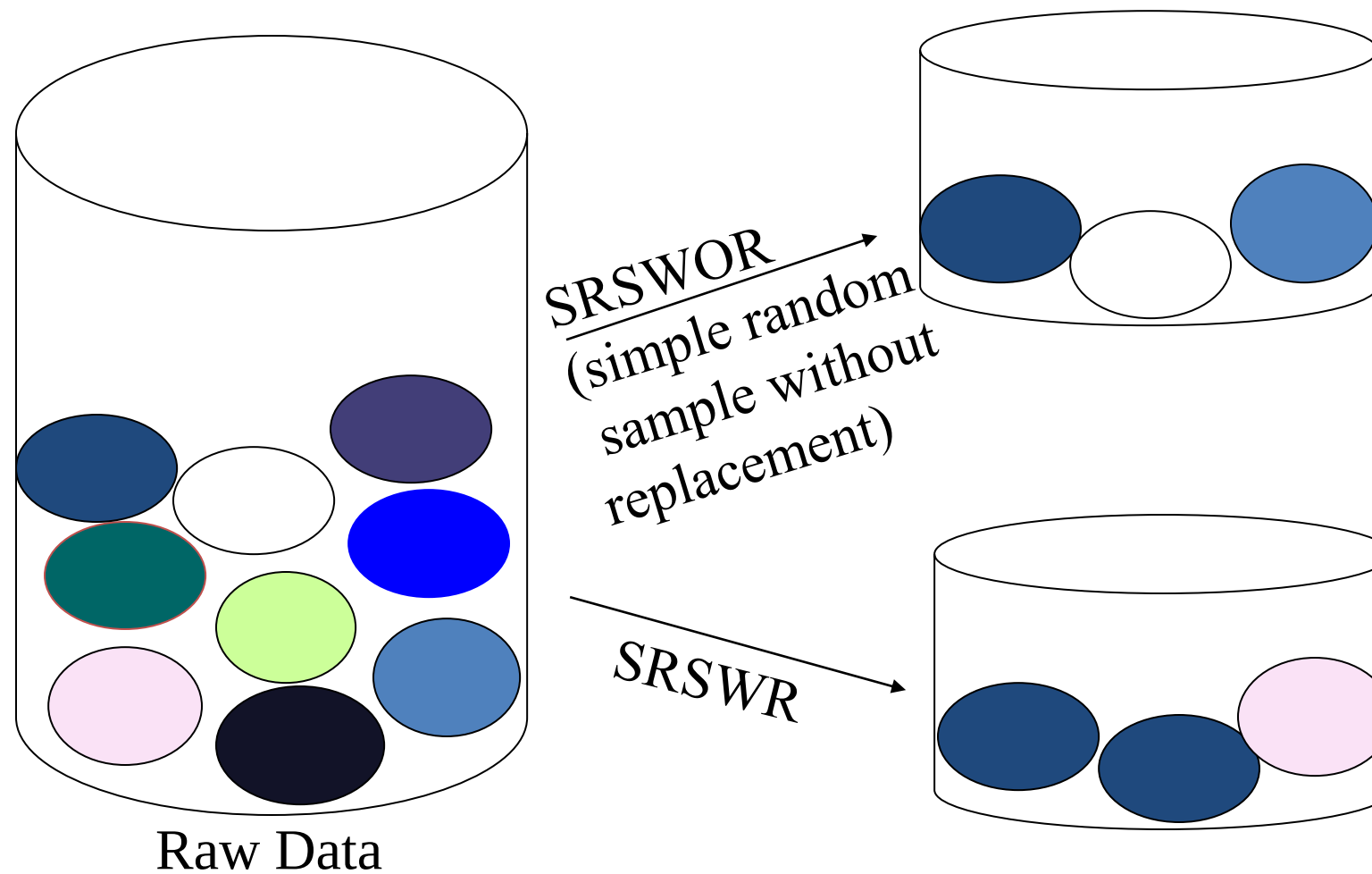
- Partition data set into clusters based on similarity, and store cluster representation (e.g., centroid and diameter) only
- Can be very effective if data is clustered but not if data is “smeared”
- Can have hierarchical clustering and be stored in multi-dimensional index tree structures
- There are many choices of clustering definitions and clustering algorithms

- Sampling: obtaining a small sample s to represent the whole data set N
- Allow a mining algorithm to run in complexity that is potentially sub-linear to the size of the data
- Key principle: Choose a **representative** subset of the data
 - Simple random sampling may have very poor performance in the presence of skew
 - Develop adaptive sampling methods, e.g., stratified sampling:
- Note: Sampling may not reduce database I/Os (page at a time)

- **Simple random sampling**
 - There is an equal probability of selecting any particular item
- **Sampling without replacement**
 - Once an object is selected, it is removed from the population
- **Sampling with replacement**
 - A selected object is not removed from the population
- **Stratified sampling:**
 - Partition the data set, and draw samples from each partition (proportionally, i.e., approximately the same percentage of the data)
 - Used in conjunction with skewed data

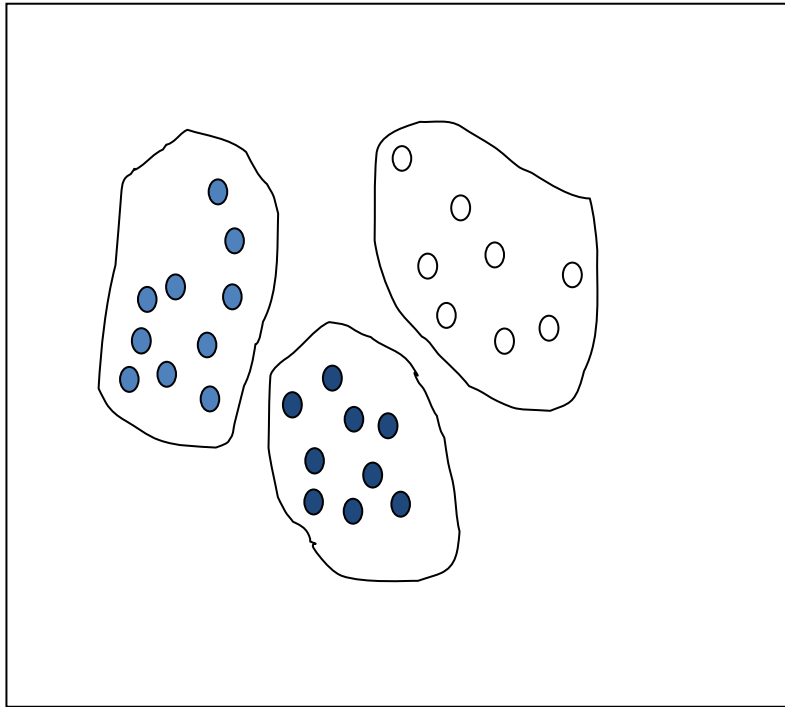


Sampling: With or without Replacement

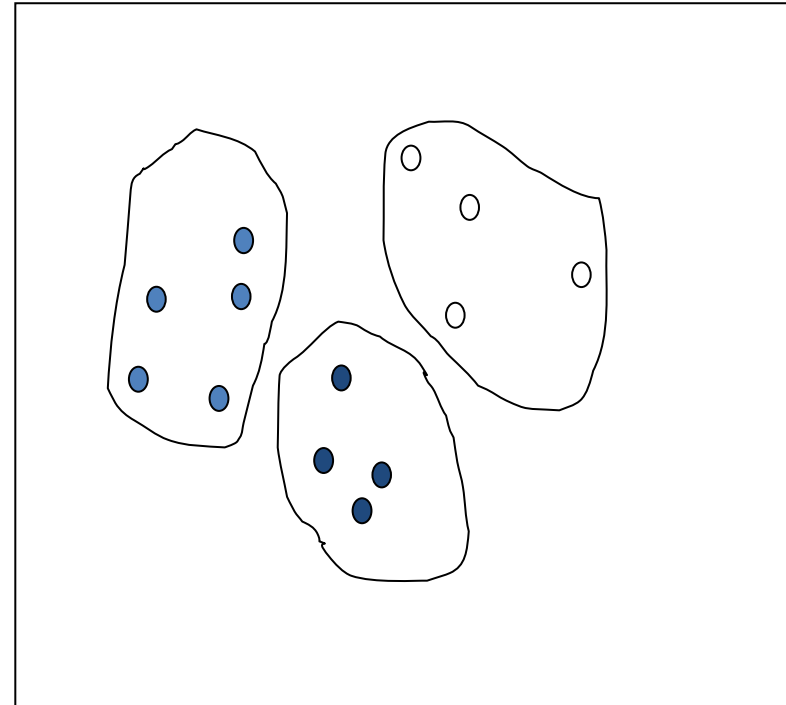


Sampling: Cluster or Stratified Sampling

Raw Data



Cluster/Stratified Sample



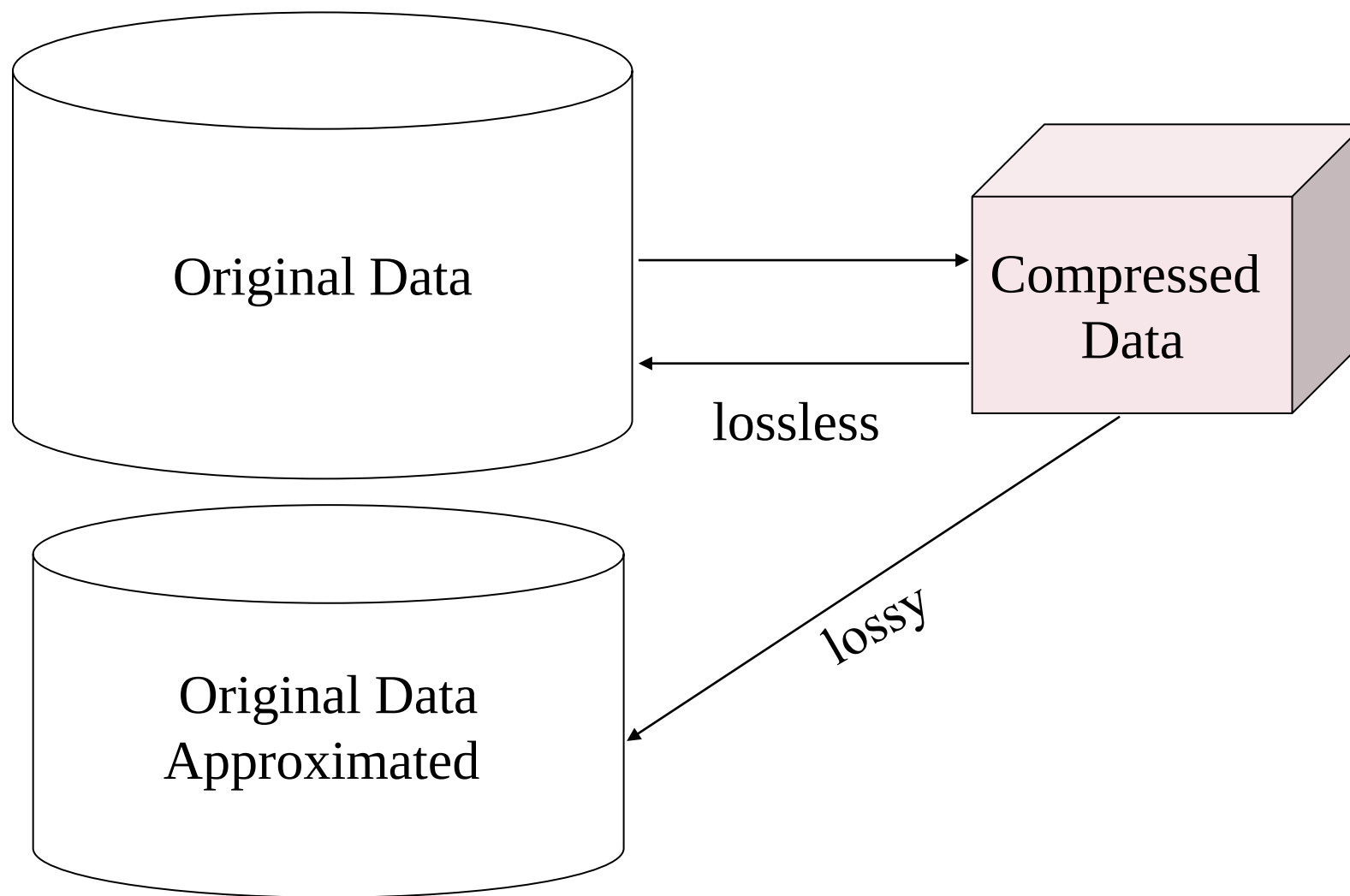
- The lowest level of a data cube (base cuboid)
 - The aggregated data for an **individual entity of interest**
 - E.g., a customer in a phone calling data warehouse
- Multiple levels of aggregation in data cubes
 - Further reduce the size of data to deal with
- Reference appropriate levels
 - Use the smallest representation which is enough to solve the task
- Queries regarding aggregated information should be answered using data cube, when possible

Data Reduction 3: Data Compression

- String compression
 - There are extensive theories and well-tuned algorithms
 - Typically lossless, but only limited manipulation is possible without expansion
- Audio/video compression
 - Typically lossy compression, with progressive refinement
 - Sometimes small fragments of signal can be reconstructed without reconstructing the whole
- Time sequence is not audio
 - Typically short and vary slowly with time
- Dimensionality and numerosity reduction may also be considered as forms of data compression



Data Compression



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- A function that maps the entire set of values of a given attribute to a new set of replacement values s.t. each old value can be identified with one of the new values
- Methods
 - Smoothing: Remove noise from data
 - Attribute/feature construction
 - New attributes constructed from the given ones
 - Aggregation: Summarization, data cube construction
 - Normalization: Scaled to fall within a smaller, specified range
 - min-max normalization
 - z-score normalization
 - normalization by decimal scaling
 - Discretization: Concept hierarchy climbing

- **Min-max normalization:** to $[new_min_A, new_max_A]$

$$v' = \frac{v - min_A}{max_A - min_A} (new_max_A - new_min_A) + new_min_A$$

- Ex. Let income range \$12,000 to \$98,000 normalized to [0.0, 1.0].

Then \$73,000 is mapped to $\frac{73,600 - 12,000}{98,000 - 12,000} (1.0 - 0) + 0 = 0.716$

- **Z-score normalization** (μ : mean, σ : standard deviation):

$$v' = \frac{v - \mu_A}{\sigma_A}$$

$$\frac{73,600 - 54,000}{16,000} = 1.225$$

- Ex. Let $\mu = 54,000$, $\sigma = 16,000$. Then

- **Normalization by decimal scaling**

$$v' = \frac{v}{10^j} \quad \text{Where } j \text{ is the smallest integer such that } \text{Max}(|v'|) < 1$$

- Three types of attributes
 - Nominal—values from an unordered set, e.g., color, profession
 - Ordinal—values from an ordered set, e.g., military or academic rank
 - Numeric—real numbers, e.g., integer or real numbers
- Discretization: Divide the range of a continuous attribute into intervals
 - Interval labels can then be used to replace actual data values
 - Reduce data size by discretization
 - Supervised vs. unsupervised
 - Split (top-down) vs. merge (bottom-up)
 - Discretization can be performed recursively on an attribute
 - Prepare for further analysis, e.g., classification

- Typical methods: All the methods can be applied recursively
 - Binning
 - Top-down split, unsupervised
 - Histogram analysis
 - Top-down split, unsupervised
 - Clustering analysis (unsupervised, top-down split or bottom-up merge)
 - Decision-tree analysis (supervised, top-down split)
 - Correlation (e.g., χ^2) analysis (unsupervised, bottom-up merge)

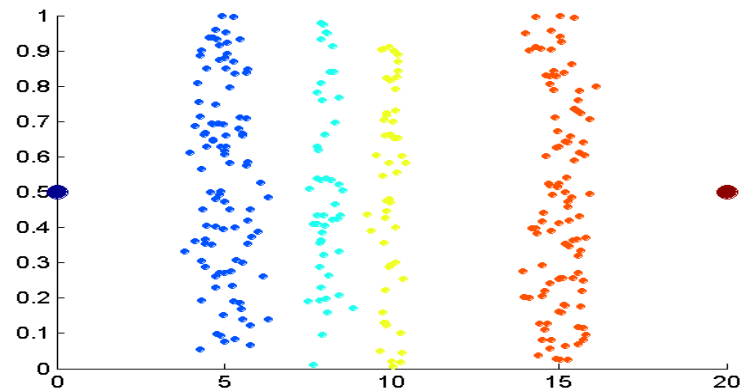
- **Equal-width** (distance) partitioning
 - Divides the range into N intervals of equal size: uniform grid
 - if A and B are the lowest and highest values of the attribute, the width of intervals will be: $W = (B - A)/N$.
 - The most straightforward, but outliers may dominate presentation
 - Skewed data is not handled well
- **Equal-depth** (frequency) partitioning
 - Divides the range into N intervals, each containing approximately same number of samples
 - Good data scaling
 - Managing categorical attributes can be tricky

Binning Methods for Data Smoothing

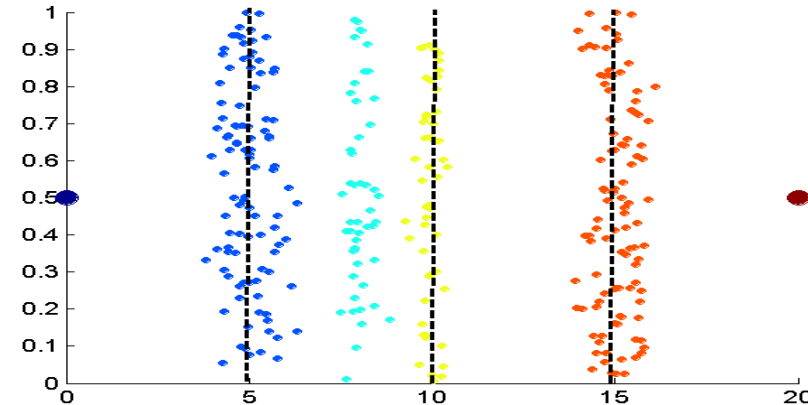
- Sorted data for price (in dollars): 4, 8, 9, 15, 21, 21, 24, 25, 26, 28, 29, 34
- * Partition into equal-frequency (**equi-depth**) bins:
 - Bin 1: 4, 8, 9, 15
 - Bin 2: 21, 21, 24, 25
 - Bin 3: 26, 28, 29, 34
- * Smoothing by **bin means**:
 - Bin 1: 9, 9, 9, 9
 - Bin 2: 23, 23, 23, 23
 - Bin 3: 29, 29, 29, 29
- * Smoothing by **bin boundaries**:
 - Bin 1: 4, 4, 4, 15
 - Bin 2: 21, 21, 25, 25
 - Bin 3: 26, 26, 26, 34

Discretization without Using Class Labels

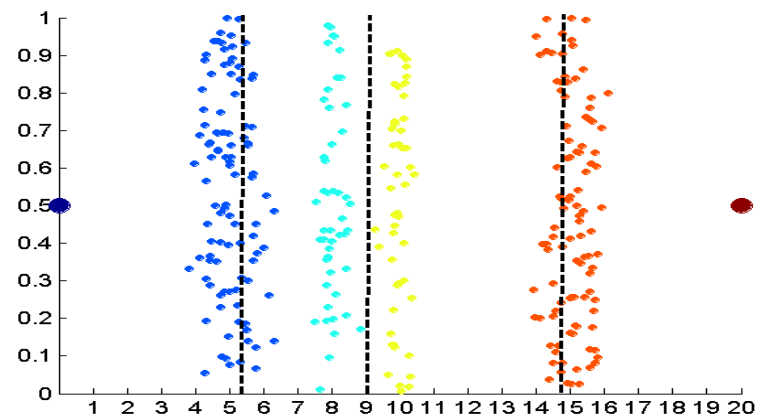
(Binning vs. Clustering)



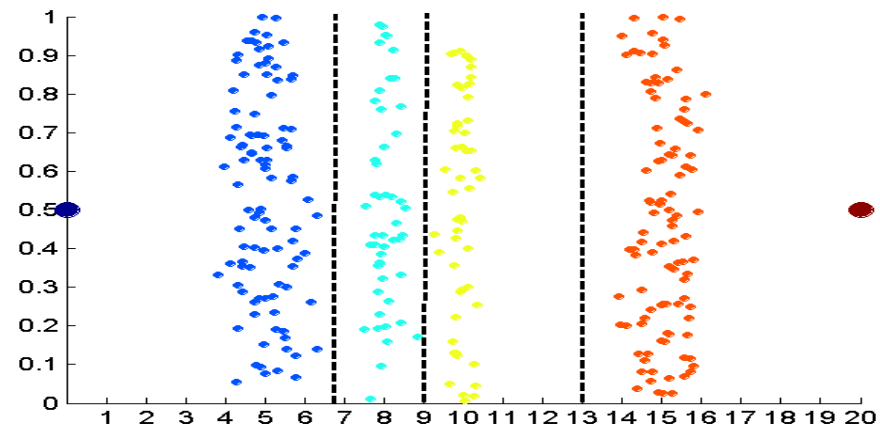
Data



Equal interval width (binning)



Equal frequency (binning)



K-means clustering leads to better results

Discretization by Classification & Correlation Analysis

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- Classification (e.g., decision tree analysis)
 - Supervised: Given class labels, e.g., cancerous vs. benign
 - Using *entropy* to determine split point (discretization point)
 - Top-down, recursive split
- Correlation analysis (e.g., Chi-merge: χ^2 -based discretization)
 - Supervised: use class information
 - Bottom-up merge: find the best neighboring intervals (those having similar distributions of classes, i.e., low χ^2 values) to merge
 - Merge performed recursively, until a predefined stopping condition

- **Concept hierarchy** organizes concepts (i.e., attribute values) hierarchically and is usually associated with each dimension in a data warehouse
- Concept hierarchies facilitate drilling and rolling in data warehouses to view data in multiple granularity
- Concept hierarchy formation: Recursively reduce the data by collecting and replacing low level concepts (such as numeric values for *age*) by higher level concepts (such as *youth*, *adult*, or *senior*)
- Concept hierarchies can be explicitly specified by domain experts and/or data warehouse designers
- Concept hierarchy can be automatically formed for both numeric and nominal data. For numeric data, use discretization methods shown.

- Specification of a partial/total ordering of attributes explicitly at the schema level by users or experts
 - *street < city < state < country*
- Specification of a hierarchy for a set of values by explicit data grouping
 - {Urbana, Champaign, Chicago} < Illinois
- Specification of only a partial set of attributes
 - E.g., only *street < city*, not others
- Automatic generation of hierarchies (or attribute levels) by the analysis of the number of distinct values
 - E.g., for a set of attributes: {*street, city, state, country*}

- Some hierarchies can be automatically generated based on the analysis of the number of distinct values per attribute in the data set
 - The attribute with the most distinct values is placed at the lowest level of the hierarchy
 - Exceptions, e.g., weekday, month, quarter, year



- Data Preprocessing: An Overview
 - Data Quality
 - Major Tasks in Data Preprocessing
- Data Cleaning
- Data Integration
- Data Reduction
- Data Transformation and Data Discretization
- Summary 

- **Data quality:** accuracy, completeness, consistency, timeliness, believability, interpretability
- **Data cleaning:** e.g. missing/noisy values, outliers
- **Data integration** from multiple sources:
 - Entity identification problem
 - Remove redundancies
 - Detect inconsistencies
- **Data reduction**
 - Dimensionality reduction
 - Numerosity reduction
 - Data compression
- **Data transformation and data discretization**
 - Normalization
 - Concept hierarchy generation

